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Apollo 11 Mission Overview

Relatório Intermédio

Palavras Chave

texto livro, arquitetura, história, construção, materiais de construção, saber tradicional.

Resumo

Um resumo é um pequeno apanhado de um trabalho mais longo (como uma tese, dissertação ou trabalho de pesquisa). O resumo relata de forma concisa os objetivos e resultados da sua pesquisa, para que os leitores saibam exatamente o que se aborda no seu documento.
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- Introdução
- Métodos
- Resultados
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Keywords

textbook, architecture, history, construction, construction materials, traditional knowledge.

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The abstract concisely reports the aims and outcomes of your research, so that readers know exactly what your paper is about.
Although the structure may vary slightly depending on your discipline, your abstract should describe the purpose of your work, the methods you've used, and the conclusions you've drawn.
One common way to structure your abstract is to use the IMRaD structure. This stands for:

- Introduction
- Methods
- Results
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Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Background

Context or background of the project.

1.2 Problem Statement

Clearly state the problem that you will address in your project.

1.3 Objectives

Clearly state the objectives or goals of your project.

1.4 Significance of the Study

Explain the importance of your project.

1.5 Scope

Define the scope of your project through requirements and allocate priorities in accordance with the relevance and uncertainty of each one.

1.6 Work Breakdown Structure (WBS)

Define the WBS, including Work Packages (WPs), tasks, Gantt Chart, indentifying risks and mitigation strategy.

Chapter 2

Literature Review

2.1 Influence of IMPs on LDH growth

AC46000 contains a diverse range of intermetallic particles (IMPs), including copper-rich phases such as Al_2Cu and Al_7Cu_2Fe, iron-rich phases such as Al_5FeSi and $Al_{15}(Fe, Mn)_3Si_2$, and eutectic silicon particles. To assess the influence of these IMPs on LDH growth and corrosion behavior, it is important to consider their electrochemical potential relative to the aluminium matrix [7, 9].

The copper-rich phases are strongly cathodic relative to the Al matrix, with Al_2Cu exhibiting a potential difference of approximately +400 mV [7]. This drives intense localized micro-galvanic coupling, promoting rapid oxygen reduction and a sharp rise in local pH. In the context of LDH growth, these conditions trigger the preferential and rapid precipitation of thick, "flower-like" LDH islands directly over the cathodic sites [3]. This localized growth is sustained by the anodic dissolution of the surrounding aluminium matrix, commonly referred to as trenching [2]. The trenching process generates voids at the periphery of the intermetallic particles where LDH flakes fail to nucleate [2]. These uncoated gaps compromise the corrosion resistance of the substrate, as chloride ions and other aggressive species can readily penetrate the exposed defects and initiate pitting corrosion [2]. The resulting inhomogeneous LDH film also reduces the adhesion of subsequently applied polymer coatings or paints [2], and in severe cases extensive trenching can render the intermetallic particles prone to detachment, further undermining the integrity of overlying layers [2].

The iron-rich phases are also strongly cathodic, approximately +300 mV above the aluminium matrix [7], and the galvanic coupling they generate similarly leads to inhomogeneous LDH growth and increased susceptibility to corrosion.

Although eutectic silicon particles are likewise cathodic, with a potential

difference of approximately +250 mV relative to the Al matrix, they are electrochemically inert and do not act as nucleation sites for LDH. Since they provide no source of the metal cations (Al^{2+}/Al^{3+}, Mg^{2+}) required for LDH formation, no coating growth is triggered at these sites [7, 6].

2.1.1 Pre-Treatment

Given the detrimental influence of these IMPs on LDH growth homogeneity and overall coating quality, their removal from the alloy surface prior to conversion coating is essential. To this end, various pre-treatment strategies have been developed, but the most widely adopted approach consists of a multistep procedure comprising degreasing, alkaline etching, and acid pickling, applied sequentially [13].

Degreasing constitutes the first pre-treatment step, with the primary objective of removing surface contamination, most notably oils and lubricants introduced during the manufacturing process. This step is critical to ensure full surface wettability, thereby guaranteeing that subsequent processing stages act uniformly across the substrate [13].

The second step, alkaline etching, is aimed at dissolving the native oxide layer that forms spontaneously on aluminium surfaces, as well as removing surface-exposed intermetallic particles. The cathodic IMPs act as highly active sites for oxygen reduction, generating a localised rise in pH at their immediate vicinity. This accelerates the anodic dissolution of the surrounding aluminium matrix, progressively undermining the mechanical support of the particles [15]. As the matrix recedes, scallop-shaped voids form at the particle periphery, eventually causing the IMPs to detach from the surface, a process known as selective dealloying [15, 8]. Since many of the constituent alloying elements released during this process are insoluble in alkaline media, they accumulate on the surface as a loosely adherent residue known as smut, the removal of which necessitates a subsequent acid pickling step [13, 15, 8].

Nitric acid (HNO_3) is widely used for desmutting because it naturally passivates the aluminum matrix while acting as a powerful oxidant [8]. It successfully targets and dissolves the dealloyed metallic smut, including copper, iron, and manganese residues. Despite this, Nitric acid alone is ineffective against silicon-rich intermetallic residues [4]. To remove these, fluorides (such as hydrofluoric acid or ammonium bifluoride) must be added to the pickling bath [1, 12]. The fluoride ions dissolve the silica and complex the remaining silicon remnants so they can be washed away [1, 12].

2.2 Equivalent Circuit Models for EIS

Determining an appropriate equivalent circuit model (ECM) for electrochemical impedance spectroscopy (EIS) spectra is among the most critical steps in impedance analysis, as it enables the deconvolution of overlapping electrochemical processes and their quantification through physically meaningful parameters. One of the most widely used models is the Randles equivalent circuit, which consists of a solution resistance (R_{s}) in series with a parallel combination of a charge-transfer resistance (R_{ct}) and a double-layer capacitance (C_{dl}), as represented in [REFERENCIAR FIGURE] [5, 11].

The R_{s}, also known as ohmic or uncompensated resistance, is the resistance resulting from the potential drop between the working electrode and the reference electrode [14, 11]. Its value depends on the specific conductivity of the bulk electrolyte and the geometry of the electrode [14]. In electrochemical impedance spectroscopy (EIS), R_{s} is found on a Nyquist plot at the intersection of the impedance data with the real axis at the high-frequency end.

R_{ct} is the real component of faradaic impedance that dictates the transfer of electrons between an electrode and the electroactive species in a solution [11]. Sometimes referred to as polarization resistance in Faradaic electrochemical processes, its value is strictly dependent on reaction kinetics and is inversely proportional to the heterogeneous rate constants of the electrode reactions [11, 5]. In electrochemical impedance spectroscopy (EIS) measurements, R_{ct} typically defines the diameter of the high-frequency semicircle observed on a Nyquist plot, a feature that results from its coupling with the double-layer capacitance [5, 11].

The C_{dl} is the capacitance that inherently forms at the electrode/electrolyte interface [10, 14]. This electrical double layer develops when ions from the electrolytic solution approach the electrode surface, creating a separation between the charges in the solution and the charges within the electrode as described in section [REFERENCIAR SECÇÃO DA DOUBLE LAYER] [14]. While liquid electrodes can act as ideal capacitors, solid electrodes rarely exhibit pure capacitive behavior and instead show frequency dispersion [11]. This non-ideal behavior is caused by surface heterogeneities, roughness, porosity, and non-uniform current distributions [5]. To accurately account for this dispersion, the double layer at solid electrodes is most commonly modeled using a Constant Phase Element (CPE) rather than an ideal capacitor [5, 11, 14].

It also becomes important to define time constants. A time constant (τ) define the characteristic duration required for a specific electrochemical process to relax from a transient state to a stable one [5]. In electrical equivalent circuits, a time constant is calculated as the product of a resistance and a capacitance ($\tau = RC.$) and dictates the rate at which the

system's current or voltage responds to a perturbation [11]. Because an electrochemical cell involves multiple parallel and sequential processes—such as charge transfer, ion diffusion, and adsorption—each fundamental process is guided by its own distinct time constant [5]. For example, the kinetic time constant of an interface is defined as $\tau_k = R_{\text{ct}} C_{\text{dl}}$ [11]. In frequency-domain measurements like Bode plots, these time constants correspond to "break-point" or characteristic frequencies ($\omega = \frac{1}{RC}$), which mark the transition between different regimes, such as moving from a capacitive-controlled response to a diffusion-dominated response [11, 5].

Charge transfer resistance is inversely proportional to the corrosion rate [10]. According to the Stern-Geary relationship, the instantaneous corrosion current is calculated by dividing a constant (derived from the anodic and cathodic Tafel slopes) by the R_{ct} [10]. Consequently, a higher resistance indicates slower electrochemical reaction kinetics and better corrosion protection [10].

Conversely, an increase in C_{dl} is indicative of protective film degradation: as the film breaks down, a larger area of bare metal is exposed directly to the corrosive electrolyte, increasing the effective capacitive area [10]. Furthermore, as localised corrosion progresses, for instance through pitting, the electrode surface becomes increasingly rough and geometrically complex, further enlarging the effective interfacial area and driving C_{dl} to higher values [11, 10]. This dependency can be understood through the expression for a planar capacitor:

$$C = \frac{\epsilon \epsilon_0 A}{d} \tag{2.1}$$

Where ϵ is the permittivity, ϵ_0 is the vacuum permittivity, A is the area of the plates, and d is the separation distance.

Chapter 3

Methodology

3.1 Determine ECM for EIS

Determining an appropriate equivalent circuit model (ECM) for electrochemical impedance spectroscopy (EIS) spectra is among the most important steps in impedance analysis, as it enables the deconvolution of overlapping electrochemical processes and their quantification through physically meaningful parameters, such as charge transfer resistance (R_{ct}), film or oxide layer resistance (R_{ox}), and double-layer capacitance (C_{dl}).

Despite its centrality to the analysis, ECM identification remains a laborious task. Commercial software packages such as ZView and Gamry Echem Analyst rely on nonlinear least-squares (NLLS) fitting routines, most commonly the Levenberg-Marquardt algorithm, which are inherently sensitive to the choice of initial parameter estimates. While heuristic approaches exist to guide these estimates, such as reading characteristic resistances from the diameters of semicircular arcs in the Nyquist representation or extracting time constants from Bode phase plots, the process remains largely manual and iterative, demanding considerable operator experience to avoid convergence to local minima or physically unreasonable solutions.

In response to these limitations, a number of open-source, programmatic alternatives have been developed, predominantly in Python. Among these, `impedance.py` provides a flexible framework for ECM fitting and validation. More recently, tools such as `AutoECM` and `AutoEIS` have incorporated machine learning methodologies into the workflow. AutoECM employs supervised classification models such as Random Forest, XGBoost (XGB), and convolutional neural network (CNN) architectures. These are trained on libraries of previously validated circuit-spectrum pairs to predict candidate ECMs for new datasets. AutoEIS, by contrast, adopts a probabilistic framework grounded in Bayesian inference, enabling uncertainty quantification in both circuit structure selection and parameter

estimation. A notable limitation shared by both tools, however, is the apparent discontinuation of active maintenance by their respective developers. As a consequence, dependency incompatibilities with more recent versions of core scientific Python libraries have rendered them largely non-functional in current environments.

Given this landscape, `impedance.py` emerges as the most viable open-source option. In its standard implementation, it operates analogously to commercial software: the user must supply the impedance dataset, an *a priori* circuit string, and initial parameter guesses. Two optional fitting configurations are available. The first, `weight_by_modulus`, applies the modulus of the complex impedance as a frequency-dependent weighting factor which ensures that data points spanning several decades of impedance magnitude contribute proportionally to the objective function. The second, `global_opt`, invokes a basin-hopping algorithm, which combines stochastic perturbation of parameter coordinates with local minimization and a Metropolis-type acceptance criterion to escape local minima. Importantly, `global_opt` is incompatible with `weight_by_modulus` and given that EIS datasets span several decades in frequency, commonly from 10 mHz to 100 kHz, and correspondingly large ranges in impedance magnitude, modulus weighting is generally considered essential to prevent low-frequency, high-impedance data from disproportionately dominating the fit residuals.

To overcome the dependence on user-supplied initial guesses while retaining the precision of local optimization, a hybrid fitting framework was developed building upon impedance.py and the Differential Evolution (DE) algorithm. DE is a stochastic, population-based global optimization metaheuristic well-suited to high-dimensional, non-differentiable, and multimodal objective functions. The algorithm evolves a population of candidate solutions across successive generations through three operators: mutation, which generates trial vectors via linear combinations of population members; crossover, which probabilistically exchanges parameter values between candidate and trial vectors; and selection, which retains whichever vector yields a lower objective function value. Crucially, DE requires no gradient information and treats the cost function as a black box, making it particularly appropriate for the complex, rugged parameter landscapes characteristic of multi-element ECM fitting.

In the proposed workflow, the user supplies only physically motivated bounds for each circuit element rather than precise initial estimates. The DE algorithm then explores this parameter space to identify the order of magnitude and approximate value of each component. To accelerate convergence, given that circuit element values typically span many orders of magnitude, the optimization is performed in logarithmic space, transforming the search domain such that each decade is treated uniformly. This logarithmic reparameterization substantially improves the efficiency of

the population-based search and reduces sensitivity to the scale disparity between, for example, charge-transfer resistances on the order of kilohms and double-layer capacitances on the order of microfarads. Once the DE stage yields a sufficiently accurate global estimate, the resulting parameter vector is passed as the initial condition to the Levenberg-Marquardt local optimizer within `impedance.py`, with `weight_by_modulus` activated, to refine the solution and obtain statistically meaningful parameter estimates together with their associated uncertainties.

3.2 Pre-treatments

As previously discussed, the presence of intermetallic phases (IMPs) on the surface of the aluminum alloy can negatively affect LDH growth and must therefore be removed prior to coating. Two different pre-treatment procedures were tested: a chemical treatment and an industrial treatment.

The first procedure consisted of cleaning at room temperature for 120 s in a 0.1 M NaOH solution, followed by etching for 480 s in a 0.1 M HNO_3 solution. Each step was followed by rinsing with deionized water and final drying in air.

The second procedure consisted of cleaning in Metaclean T2001 (alkaline cleaner based on metal silicates with complexing and surface-active agents) at approximately 65 °C for 25 min, followed by rinsing with deionized water. The specimens were then etched in TurcoLiquid Aluminetch N2 (sodium hydroxide and phosphate-based solution) at 65 °C for 45 s, rinsed with deionized water, and desmutted in TurcoLiquid Smutgo NC (based on ferric sulfate, nitric acid, sodium hydrogendifluoride, and sulfuric acid) at 30 °C for approximately 5 min, before a final rinse with deionized water and drying in air.

Chapter 4

Results

Present the results of your project clearly and concisely, using tables and figures where necessary.

Chapter 5

Discussion

Interpret the results and discuss their implications. Compare your findings with previous research. Discuss any limitations of your study.

Chapter 6

Conclusion & Future Work

Sum up the main findings and their importance, and discuss how they have the WBS going forward.

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